



Debugging and profiling tools

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Debugging and profiling tools are essential for identifying logic errors, memory issues, and performance bottlenecks in software.

- **gdb**: Interactive debugger for stepping through code, inspecting state, and diagnosing crashes.
- **gprof**: Function-level profiler that generates execution-time statistics and call graphs from sampling.
- **perf**: Linux performance analyzer leveraging hardware counters for fine-grained profiling and system tracing.
- **valgrind**: Instrumentation framework (e.g. Memcheck) for detecting memory leaks, invalid accesses, and threading errors.



The GNU Debugger (GDB)

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- The GDB model
 - The debugger process and the debugged process
- Basic usage
 - Starting GDB
 - Setting breakpoints
 - Stepping over the program: next, step, finish
 - Examining data
 - Watchpoints
 - Examining the call stack
- Advanced gdb
 - Working with core dumps
 - Writing pretty-printers using the GDB Python API.

Compiling the program for debugging



- Assume that the program being debugged is **buggyprog.cpp**
 - Compile the program as **\$ g++ -g buggyprog.cpp -o buggyprog**
 - **-g** provides GDB extra debugging information to connect the executable back to the source program.
 - What are the 10 source statements around the current breakpoint?
 - Which machine instructions correspond to:
seriesValue += xpow/ComputeFactorial(k);
 - What is the type of the variable **seriesValue**?
 - What is the memory address where **seriesValue** is stored?
- The **-g** flag adds this information to the executable.
 - **readelf --debug-dump=line** gives line number → machine code map
 - **readelf --debug-dump=info** gives types, location (grep for the variable)

Starting the Debugger



- Start the debugger as:
 - \$ **gdb** buggyprog
 - \$ **gdb --args** buggyprog *args...* (arguments from the command line)
 - \$ **gdb** buggyprog *coredump* (more about this later)
- Run the debugger as:
 - \$ **(gdb) run**
 - \$ **(gdb) run** *arg1 arg2*

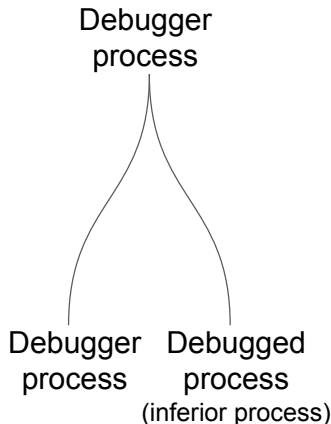
And the program runs to completion (or abortion) with bugs and everything.
Not very useful.



Debugger Process (gdb)

Reads user input, and executes it:

- Shows info about debugger state - breakpoints, watchpts, convenience vars, macros)
- Shows information about the debugged process (program vars, PC).
- Enables breakpoint setting
- Passes control to debugged process.



Debugged Process

- Executes till breakpoint or end.
- Forced to give up control to debugger.

Starting the Debugger: What happens internally



1. **GDB:** user types `break main` and then `run` (alternately `start`)
2. **GDB:** `fork()` → `waitpid()`
3. **Child:** `ptrace(PTRACE_TRACEME)` → `execve("./buggyprog")`
4. **Kernel:** stops child at `execve`, wakes **GDB** via `waitpid()`.
5. **GDB (Wakes):** `set_breakpoint(main)`; hands control back to child
6. **Child (Runs):** Hits `0xCC`; Hardware triggers exception. Call this program point `p`.
7. **Kernel:** Halts child through `SIGTRAP`, wakes **GDB**.
8. **GDB (Wakes):** User debugs and configures additional breakpoints at various program points.
 - a. For each additional program point `p'` do: `set_breakpoint(p')`;
 - b. `execute_instr_at(p)`;
 - c. `ptrace(PTRACE_CONT)`; `waitpid()`

`execute_instr_at(p)`: Restore original instruction at `p`; Execute this instruction; Write `0xCC` back to `p`.

`set_breakpoint(p)`: Read and save original instruction at `p`; Write `0xCC`.

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Setting Breakpoints



- Setting breakpoints
 - at line *lineno* of the current file
(gdb) **break** *lineno*
 - Other variations
(gdb) **break** *function*
(gdb) **break** *filename:linenum*
(gdb) **break** *filename:function*
(gdb) **info breakpoints**
 - (gdb) **tbreak** *lineno/function/filename:linenum/filename:function*

gdb demonstration in accompanying video.

Reaching a breakpoint



- Reaching breakpoints

- To reach the first breakpoint
(gdb) run

Starts the program and stops at the first breakpoint.

- To reach subsequent breakpoints
(gdb) continue

Resumes execution until the next breakpoint is hit.



- Stepping over the program line by line
 - **(gdb) next**
executes current line and moves to the next line.
 - **(gdb) step**
executes current line. If the current line is a function, gdb steps into the function.
 - **(gdb) finish**
Continue to the end of the current function

Locating the current point of execution



- Locating the current point
 - **(gdb) where**
Displays the current call stack (i.e., function calls leading to this point).
 - **(gdb) bt**
Equivalent to where; shows the call stack
- Listing statements around the current point
 - **(gdb) list**
Displays source code around the current line (usually 10 lines at a time).

Printing values in gdb



- Printing

- **print** *exp*

Evaluates and prints any valid C/C++ expression

- **print** *function::variable*

Prints value of a variable scoped within a function.

- **print** *file::variable*

Prints value of a variable defined in a specific file.

- Display

- **display** *exp*

Automatically prints the value of the expression at every step.

Breaking when an expression changes



- Watch expression
 - **watch** *exp*
Pauses execution when the value of the expression changes.
 - **watch** *exp if cond*
Pauses execution only if the value of the expression changes and the condition is true

How to debug a core dump



- Allow core dump creation
 - `ulimit -c unlimited` // `ulimit -c` sets limit on core dump size (default is 0)
 - `sudo sysctl -w kernel.core_pattern=core` // `sysctl -w` writes to the kernel to save the core dump as `core` in `current dir.`
- Compile with `-g`, run and trigger a crash
- Debug the core file using GDB: `gdb ./program core.3669781`
- Inside `gdb`, you can only *examine* and *not run* the program.
 - `bt` — View call stack (backtrace), `up/down` to navigate the backtrace, `frame n` for the *n*th frame
 - `info locals` — Examine variables
 - `disassemble, info registers`
 - `info proc mappings`: See the virtual memory map. Did the crash happen because of an access to an unmapped region?

Advanced gdb – The GDB-Python API



- Consider debugging a C++ program with the outline:

```
#include <memory>
#include <string>
```

```
int main() {
    auto node_ptr =
    std::make_unique<Node>(Node{42, "Unique"});
    //Breakpoint here
    ...
}
```

```
(gdb) disable pretty-printer
(gdb) p (node_ptr)
$6 = {
    _M_t = {
        <std::__uniq_ptr_impl<Node,
std::default_delete<Node> >> = {
            _M_t = {
                ...
            <std::_Head_base<1,
std::default_delete<Node>, true>> =
{ _M_head_impl = {<No data fields>}}, <No data
fields>},
            <std::_Head_base<0, Node*, false>> =
{ _M_head_impl = 0x55555556c2b0
```

Advanced gdb – The GDB-Python API



- Consider debugging a C++ program with the outline:

```
struct node {  
    int key_value;  
    node *left;  
    node *right;  
}  
class btree {  
public: btree();  
    ~btree();  
    void insert(int key);  
    node *search(int key);  
private: node *root;  
}
```

```
int main () {  
    int a [10] = {5,3,9,6,8,  
                 23,4,12,1,7};  
  
    btree bt;  
    for (int i=0; i<10; i++)  
        bt.insert(a[i]);  
    return 0;  
}
```

Complete programs available with the accompanying resources.

A normal debugging session



```
$ g++ -g tree.cpp -o tree
$ gdb tree
```

```
GNU gdb (Ubuntu 8.1.1-0ubuntu1) 8.1.1
```

```
(gdb) b 123
```

```
Breakpoint 1 at 0xf88: file tree.cpp, line 123.
```

```
(gdb) run
```

```
Starting program: ...Breakpoint 1, main () at tree.cpp:123
```

```
123      return 0;
```

```
(gdb) p bt
```

```
$1 = {root = 0x555555768e70}
```

```
(gdb) p *(bt.root)
```

```
$4 = {key_value = 5, left = 0x555555768e90, right = 0x555555768eb0}
```

A normal debugging session



- Native GDB output is cumbersome for visualizing complex data (e.g. `std::unique_ptr`, arbitrary user-defined structures).
- The [GDB Python API](#) lets you extend GDB: traverse in-memory objects, synthesize views.
- With a Python script you can:
 - Inspect `bt in tree.cpp` programmatically
 - Emit a `graphviz` dot file representing the tree topology
 - Automatically invoke `graphviz` to render and display the tree within your debug session.

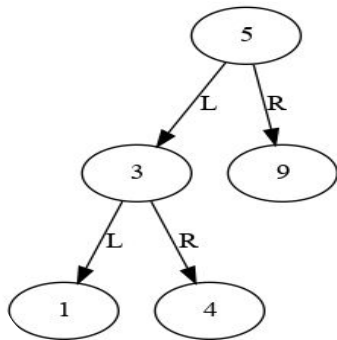
A dot figure



example.dot

```
digraph G {  
  splines=line;  
  node5[ label = "5"];  
  node3[ label = "3"];  
  node1[ label = "1"];  
  node3->node1[ label = "L"];  
  node4[ label = "4"];  
  node3->node4[ label = "R"];  
  node9[ label = "9"];  
  node5->node3[ label = "L"];  
  node5->node9[ label = "R"];  
}
```

xdot example.dot



vscode has extensions for previewing dot files.

Generating the dot file



- To generate the dot file using a python script `test_gdb.py`:

```
import io
def print_tree(nodeptr): # Function to walk and print
                        # the tree

    ...
outfile = open("out.dot", "w+")
outfile.write("digraph G { \n")
outfile.write("splines=line; \n")
bt_node = gdb.parse_and_eval('bt') # bt_node is a gdb.Value object
print_tree(bt_node['root'])
outfile.write("}")
outfile.close()
```

Generating the dot file



- `gdb.parse_and_eval` takes an C/C++ expression from the debugged program as a string, and parses and evaluates it.
- The result is an object of the type `gdb.Value`.
- [This link](#) describes how values in the debugged program are handled in Python.
- The value of `bt.root` as a python object is passed to `print_tree()`.

print_tree



```
1 def print_tree(nodeptr):
2     if nodeptr == 0x0:
3         return ""
4     else:
5         node = nodeptr.dereference()
6         node_name = "node"+str(node['key_value']) # create a dotfile node
7         outfile.write(node_name + "[ label = "+"\"
8             +str(node['key_value']) + "\" + "];\n")
9         left_name = print_tree(node['left']) #print the left tree
10        right_name = print_tree(node['right']) #print the right tree
11        if left_name != "": #edges from node to
12            outfile.write(node_name + "-" + left_name #subtrees
13                + "[ label = \"L\"]" + ";\n")
14        if right_name != "":
15            outfile.write(node_name + "-" + right_name
16                + "[ label = \"R\"]" + ";\n")
17        return node_name
18
```

comments on print_tree



- Line 5: If **val** is a **gdb.Value** object corresponding to a pointer in the debugged language, then **val.dereference()** gives the **gdb.Value** of its pointee.
- Lines 7,9,10: All **structs**, **classes** and **unions** are represented by dictionary **gdb.Value** objects. Their components can be extracted by the dictionary notation.

How to use the Python script?

- After setting a breakpoint, run the debugged program, till you hit the break point. Now say:
(gdb) source test_gdb.py
- The script will be executed and the structure of **bt** will be printed in **out.dot**

Customizing a **gdb** printer for **btree**



- Instead of sourcing the Python script at every breakpoint, embed logic directly into **gdb**'s pretty-printer.
- Define a printer for the **btree** class and register it with the GDB Python API.
- Now, when you run:

```
$ (gdb) p bt
```

gdb will automatically invoke your printer to:

- Traverse the current **bt** structure in memory
- Emit a graphviz dot description of the tree
- The dot viewer renders the new state of **bt**.

Customizing a gdb printer for btree



- Define a class called **TreePrinter** which must have
 - A constructor which stores a value of the type **btree**.
 - A function **to_string** which is the string representation of the pretty-printed value. However we write into a dot file and return the empty string instead.

In addition:

- A function, in this case called **lookup_type**, which relates an object of type **btree** to a **TreePrinter** object.
- The pretty printer is registered by adding this function to **`gdb.pretty_printers`**.
- One can use the gdb initialization script **`.gdbinit`** to source **`tree_printer.py`**.

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Creating and registering a type based printer.



```
import io

def print_tree(nodeptr):
    ...

class TreePrinter:
    def __init__(self, val):
        self.val = val

    def to_string(self):
        global outfile
        nodeptr = self.val['root']
        outfile = open("out.dot", "w+")
        outfile.write("digraph G { \n")
        outfile.write("splines=line; \n")
        print_tree(nodeptr)
        outfile.write("}")
        outfile.close()
        return ""
```

```
def lookup_type (val):
    if str(val.type)=='btree':
        return TreePrinter(val)
    return None
gdb.pretty_printers.append
(lookup_type)
```

In summary:

- Write a class `XPrinter` whose constructor has a member of type `X`, and a function `to_string`.
- define a function `lookup_type` that takes a value `val` of type `X` and returns instance `Xprinter(val)`
- register `lookup_type`.
- source file in `~/gdbinit`
- `(gdb) print val:` gdb retrieves the pretty-printer for `val`, does `Xprinter(val).to_string()`

Triggering actions based on events



- The python interface for gdb events are described [here](#).
- Lets say, we want to print a **bt**ree every time the debugged process stops.
 - This is what **display** does
- We write a callback function, also called a handler (**stop_handler**) for a **stop** event.
- The parameter called **event** contains details of the event. Not useful in the present case.
- **`gdb.events.stop.connect (stop_handler)`** is the call that connects the event **stop** with the handler **stop_handler**.

Triggering actions based on events



```
import gdb
```

```
def stop_handler(event): // this is what happens on "display bt"
```

```
    bt_val = gdb.parse_and_eval('bt')
```

```
    # Force GDB to run its internal pretty-printing lookup loop.
```

```
    # This automatically invokes Treeprinter(bt_val).to_string()
```

```
    printer_output = str(bt_val)
```

```
gdb.events.stop.connect(stop_handler)
```



- **`gdb`** provides fine-grained control over program execution:
 - Breakpoints, stepping, backtraces, variable inspection, and more.
 - Essential for understanding control flow and program state.
- The GDB-Python API extends this with programmability:
 - Automate actions (e.g., on stop, on breakpoint hit)
 - Build custom pretty-printers for complex data structures
 - Trigger external tools — like visualizing trees with graphviz



- [*GDB: The GNU Project Debugger*](#): The bible
- [*GDB man pages*](#): For quick reference
- [*Debugging with GDB: The GNU Source-Level Debugger*](#): Richard Stallman, Roland Pesch, et al. 12th Media Services, 2018.
 - All of gdb in a single book written by its original creator.
- [*YouTube: GDB Tutorials by Jacob Sorber*](#)
 - A series of videos on different aspects of gdb
- [*GDB Python API Documentation*](#)
 - For writing pretty-printers, event handlers, etc.



The GNU Profiler (gprof)

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- gprof is a performance analysis tool for **C, C++, and Fortran** programs.
- It reports **how much time** is spent in each function and **how often** functions are called.
- Analysis is performed at the **function level**—it does not break down costs to individual statements.
 - Instruments the program (via `-pg`) to insert a profiling hook at each function entry. Builds a weighted call graph: edges are function calls, weights are exact call counts.
 - Samples execution at regular intervals (e.g., every 10 ms) and records the current program counter (PC).
 - Maps sampled addresses to function names using symbol/debug information (compilation with `-g` improves accuracy), thereby identifying which function was executing at each sample.
 - Combines call counts and sampled time to construct a call graph annotated with execution costs.
- Useful for identifying **performance bottlenecks** and guiding code optimization.

Recursive quicksort



```
1  #include <iostream>
2  #include <vector>
3  #include <cstdlib>
4  long count = 0;
5
6  void quicksort(std::vector<int>& vec, int low, int high) {
7      count++;
8      if (low >= high) return;
9      int pivot = vec[low];
10     int left = low + 1;
11     int right = high;
12     while (left <= right) {
13         while (left <= high && vec[left] <= pivot) left++;
14         while (right > low && vec[right] > pivot) right--;
15         if (left < right)
16             std::swap(vec[left], vec[right]);
17     }
18     if (vec[low] > vec[right]) std::swap(vec[low], vec[right]);
19     quicksort(vec, low, right - 1);
20     quicksort(vec, right + 1, high);
21 }
```

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Searching an array

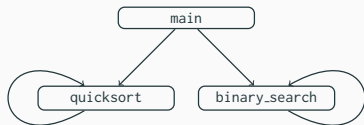


```
1  int binary_search(const std::vector<int>& vec, int low, int high, int target) {
2      if (low > high) return -1;
3      int mid = (low + high) / 2;
4      if (vec[mid] == target) return mid;
5      else if (vec[mid] > target) return binary_search(vec, low, mid - 1, target);
6      else return binary_search(vec, mid + 1, high, target);
7  }
8  int main() {
9      std::vector<int> vec(10000000);
10     std::srand(42); // Random number generation
11     for (int i = 0; i < 10000000; ++i) vec[i] = std::rand() % 100000000;
12     int target = 94984;
13     vec[969784] = 94984; // Ensure the target is in the array
14     quicksort(vec, 0, vec.size() - 1);
15     int index = binary_search(vec, 0, vec.size() - 1, target);
16     if (index != -1) std::cout << "Found " << target << " at index " << index << ".\n";
17     else std::cout << target << " not found in the array.\n";
18     std::cout << "Count: " << count << "\n";
19     return 0;
20 }
```

The call graph



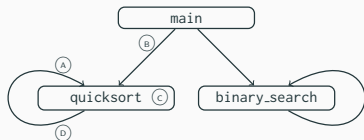
```
1 % compile with profiling support
2 g++ -std=c++11 -pg -O2 -o search search.cpp
3 % run the instrumented binary (produces gmon.out)
4 ./search
5 % show only the call-graph
6 gprof -q ./search gmon.out
7 % show flat profile + call-graph
8 gprof -p -q ./search gmon.out
```



Index	% time	Self	Children	Called	Function
[1]	100.0	0.02	1.26	—	main
		0.45	0.62	1/1	quicksort
		0.00	0.00	1/1	binary_search
[2]	83.3	0.45	0.62	13,335,988	quicksort
		0.45	0.62	1/1	main
				1+13,335,988	quicksort
[3]	0.0			13,335,988	quicksort
		0.00	0.00	18	binary_search
		0.00	0.00	1/1	main
				1+18	binary_search
					binary_search
				18	binary_search

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Call graph explained



Index	% time	Self	Children	Called	Function
(A)				13,335,988	quicksort
(B)		0.45	0.62	1/1	main
(C) [2]	83.3	0.45	0.62	1 + 13,335,988	quicksort
(D)				13,335,988	quicksort

- The shaded line (C) shows that these rows contain information about quicksort whose index is [2].
- (A) indicates that one of the functions calling quicksort is quicksort itself (13,335,988 calls).
- (B) shows that quicksort was also called from main (1 call). During this call 0.45s was spent in the body (Self) of quicksort and 0.62s in calls (Children) from quicksort.
- (C) shows the cumulative figures over all call to quicksort. 83.3% of the time was spent in quicksort. Total calls is: 1 + 13,335,988.
- (D) shows that the only function to which calls were made from quicksort is quicksort itself.
- **Drawback:** Granularity of the information is at the function level. Does not extend to individual statements.



perf



- perf is a Linux profiling tool used to monitor the CPU usage of a program at multiple levels of granularity to identify code bottlenecks.
- It leverages hardware performance counters and sampling to generate these performance statistics.
- **How perf works:**
 - Modern CPUs maintain special-purpose counters for low-level events such as cycles, instructions, cache-misses, and branch-misses.
 - perf can request the kernel to interrupt the program for sampling in several ways:
 1. At fixed time intervals (e.g., every 10ms).
 2. On specific events (e.g., on the overflow of the branch-miss counter).
 - At each interrupt, perf records the current instruction pointer (PC); with -g, it also records the current call stack.
 - Repeating this over many samples yields a statistical picture of
 1. where time is spent.
 2. which branches have a high miss rate
 3. where cache misses occur.
 - Flat reports summarize **which functions were active**; call-graph reports summarize **which call chains were active**.



Usage:

1. Compile the program with -g switch, assume output is an executable called search:
2. Record samples. Adjust frequency thru -F, record sample-wise call-stack with -g, sample on events with -e:

```
1 perf record -F10000 -g ./search
2 perf record -e branch-misses -g ./search
```

3. Generate interactive report, sorted by % overhead:

```
1 perf report -n --no-children
2 perf report -n --no-children --studio > analysis.txt
```

4. Dump annotation for a function, expects function prototype:

```
1 perf annotate --stdio -s "quicksort(std::vector<int, std::allocator<int> >&, int, int)" > analysis.txt
```

5. Quick stats:

```
1 perf stat -e cycles,instructions ./search
```



- Compile each version with `-O0`.
- Run `hyperfine` with a few warm-up runs to stabilize caches and JIT effects.
- `hyperfine` reports mean $\pm$ standard deviation over 10 runs, user vs system time, min/max.

```
1 g++ -O0 -o search_1 search_1.cpp
2 hyperfine --warmup 3 ./search_1 # warm up 3 runs, then measure 10 runs
```

Example output:

```
1 Time (mean  $\pm$  std):    2.759 s  $\pm$  0.081 s [User: 2.745 s, System: 0.013 s]
2 Range (min...max):    2.669 s ... 2.845 s    (10 runs)
```

When optimized with `-O2`:

```
1 Time (mean  $\pm$  std):    1.318 s  $\pm$  0.017 s [User: 1.300 s, System: 0.018 s]
2 Range (min ... max):    1.308 s ... 1.366 s    10 runs
```

Optimization 1: Convert vector access to array access



- The access `int pivot = vec[low];` compiles into a costly sequence (roughly 1% of samples):

```
1 0.20 : 131e: mov    -0x2c(%rbp),%eax    # load low
2 0.02 : 1321: movslq %eax,%rdx    # sign-extend index
3 0.02 : 1324: mov    -0x28(%rbp),%rax    # load &vec
4 0.06 : 1328: mov    %rdx,%rsi    # idx → arg2
5 0.09 : 132b: mov    %rax,%rdi    # &vec → arg1
6 0.15 : 132e: call   18e4 <vector::operator[]> # call operator[]
7 0.24 : 1333: mov    (%rax),%eax    # dereference pointer
8 0.21 : 1335: mov    %eax,-0x14(%rbp) # store pivot
```

- Solution:** Extract raw array pointer once and use direct indexing:

```
1 void quicksort(int* arr,...           // change quicksort signature
2 quicksort(vec.data(), 0, vec.size() - 1); // call quicksort with array instead of a vector
3 int pivot = arr[low];                 // vector access replaced with array access
```

Optimization 2: Reduce Recursive Call Overhead



- Classic QuickSort does *two* recursive calls per partition.
- By recursing on the *smaller* side and looping on the *larger*, we cut the number of calls in half.
- Result: (*Partitioning*) effort remains same, but *50 % fewer* function-call overheads.

```
1 void quicksort(int* arr, int low, int high) {  
2     while (low < high) {  
3         int pivot = arr[low];  
4         int left = low + 1;  
5         int right = high;  
6         // Compute partition index in the variable right  
7         ...  
8         // Recurse on smaller half, loop on larger  
9         if (right - low < high - right) {  
10             quicksort(arr, low, right - 1);  
11             low = right + 1;  
12         } else {  
13             quicksort(arr, right + 1, high);  
14             high = right - 1;  
15     }  
}
```

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Optimization 3: Inline Swaps



- Each `std::swap(a,b)` in the hot partition loop compiles to a function call (roughly 1 % of cycles).
- We can avoid that call-overhead by spelling out the three moves directly.
- Manual inlining yields $3 \times \text{mov}$ instead of `call+prologue+epilogue`.

```
1 // Original (in partition loop):
2   std::swap(arr[left], arr[right]);
3
4 // Inlined version:
5   int tmp = arr[left];
6   arr[left] = arr[right];
7   arr[right] = tmp;
```


Optimization 4: Convert vector access to pointer in Binary Search



- C++ `std::vector::operator[]` in each recursion incurs function-call overhead.
- We remove that by extracting a raw pointer once and indexing directly.

```
1 // Optimized pointer-based binary search:
2 int binary_search_ptr(const int* arr, int low, int high,
3                       int target) {
4     while (low <= high) {
5         int mid = (low + high) >> 1;
6         if (arr[mid] == target) return mid;
7         else if (arr[mid] < target) low = mid + 1;
8         else high = mid - 1;
9     }
10    return -1;
11 }
```

Optimization Results



Original

Benchmark 1: ./search_1

Time (mean $\pm \sigma$): 2.800 s $\pm$ 0.014 s [User: 2.782 s, System: 0.017 s]

Range (min ... max): 2.786 s ... 2.824 s 10 runs

Optimization 1: Vector to array

Benchmark 1: ./search_2

Time (mean $\pm \sigma$): 2.476 s $\pm$ 0.018 s [User: 2.459 s, System: 0.016 s]

Range (min ... max): 2.456 s ... 2.513 s 10 runs

Optimization 2: Reduce Recursive call overhead

Benchmark 1: ./search_3

Time (mean $\pm \sigma$): 2.450 s $\pm$ 0.009 s [User: 2.435 s, System: 0.014 s]

Range (min ... max): 2.440 s ... 2.470 s 10 runs

Optimization 3: Inline swap function

Benchmark 1: ./search_4

Time (mean $\pm \sigma$): 2.140 s $\pm$ 0.002 s [User: 2.125 s, System: 0.015 s]

Range (min ... max): 2.137 s ... 2.143 s 10 runs

Optimization 4: Iterative Binary search

Benchmark 1: ./search_5

Time (mean $\pm \sigma$): 2.153 s $\pm$ 0.011 s [User: 2.133 s, System: 0.020 s]

Range (min ... max): 2.139 s ... 2.167 s 10 runs

Optimization 5: Using -O3

Benchmark 1: ./search_5

Time (mean $\pm \sigma$): 1.232 s $\pm$ 0.012 s [User: 1.213 s, System: 0.019 s]

Range (min ... max): 1.220 s ... 1.250 s 10 runs

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- Abstractions have a cost: Using a `std::vector` over an array incurs the following costs: (i) function-call overhead, (ii) double-dereferencing, (iii) data dependencies that trigger pipeline stalls.
- Moving from recursive to iterative search showed a slight increase in mean time! We often assume recursion is slow due to function call overheads, but for $O(\log N)$ depth, that cost may be negligible.
- In general, reducing work inside the inner partitioning loop like replacing swap by a direct assignment or replacing vectors by arrays is more valuable.
- As we optimized manually (search_2 through search_4), the gains got smaller and smaller, suggesting that we were reaching the "local maximum" for that specific compiler level (-O0).
- True performance breakthroughs usually require changing the memory Layout (cache-friendliness) or exploiting the instruction set, which is exactly what the -O3 flag automated.
- While manual improvements are useful, aggressive compiler optimization can outweigh several source-level refinements combined.



valgrind



Valgrind is a tool-chain for dynamic instrumentation of binaries, enabling deep checks for memory and threading errors.

- **Memcheck:** Detects memory leaks, use-after-free, uninitialized reads/writes.
- **Helgrind:** Finds data races and synchronization bugs in multithreaded code.
- **Cachegrind:** Simulates CPU caches to pinpoint cache misses.
- **Callgrind:** Collects detailed call-graph and instruction-level execution counts.

In this course, we will focus on **Memcheck**.

How Valgrind Works: Use-after-free, uninitialized reads/writes.



- Valgrind translates machine code into an architecture-neutral IR, inserts checking logic, and JIT-compiles it back for the CPU.
- Maintains a parallel metadata structure for every byte of application memory (Stack, Heap, Data, BSS).
- Each byte's metadata includes:
 - **A-bits (Addressability):** Is the program allowed to access this? (Set during malloc/free or during stack growth).
 - **V-bits (Validity):** Does the location have a defined value?
- For an instruction like `mov eax, [ebx]`, Valgrind verifies the A-bit/V-bit at address `ebx` *before* the actual CPU execution.
- Like OS Page Tables, shadow memory uses a multi-level sparse array. This allows "lazy" allocation of shadow bits only when the program touches a memory region.
- This software-defined MMU provides precision but incurs a 10–50× slowdown due to the heavy metadata management.

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- Valgrind maintains a hidden record of every active `malloc` (address, size, and stack trace).
- Entries are added at `malloc` and strictly removed at `free`.
- Just before the process exits, Valgrind performs a "Mark-and-Sweep" style audit.
- It treats all data in Registers, the Stack, and Global segments (`.data/.bss`) as potential pointers, and chases them to see which allocated blocks are still reachable.
- Valgrind classifies each unfreed block as:

Still Reachable: A pointer to the block exists in the Root Set. (Sloppy programming, but not a "lost" resource).

Definitely Lost: No pointer exists anywhere in the Root Set. The program has lost the handle to this memory. **This is a true leak.**

Indirectly Lost: The block is pointed to only by other "Lost" blocks (e.g., the tail of a lost linked list).

- Checking reachability is computationally expensive. By doing it at exit, Valgrind reports all leaks in one comprehensive summary.

An example program with a memory leak



```
1  #include <stdio.h>
2  #include <stdlib.h>
3  #include <string.h>
4  // Duplicate the input string and trim trailing spaces.
5  // If the trimmed string is longer than 10 characters, return NULL without freeing
6  char* duplicate_and_trim(const char* s) {
7      size_t orig_len = strlen(s);
8      char *buffer = malloc(orig_len + 1);
9      if (!buffer) return NULL;
10     strcpy(buffer, s);
11
12     size_t len = strlen(buffer);    // Trim trailing spaces
13     while (len > 0 && buffer[len - 1] == ' ')
14         buffer[--len] = '\0';
15     if (len > 10) return NULL;    // introduce leak
16
17     char *trimmed = malloc(len + 1);
18     if (!trimmed) return NULL;
19     strcpy(trimmed, buffer);
20     free(buffer);
21     return trimmed;
22 }
```

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```
1  int main(void) {
2      const char *inputs[] = {
3          "short ",
4          "this input is definitely too long ",
5          "fine ",
6          NULL
7      };
8
9      for (int i = 0; inputs[i]; i++) {
10         char *out = duplicate_and_trim(inputs[i]);
11         if (!out) {
12             fprintf(stderr, "[!] failed to process %s\n", inputs[i]);
13             continue;
14         }
15         printf("-> %s\n", out);
16         free(out);
17     }
18
19     return 0;
20 }
```



- **Compile with debug info:**

```
1 gcc -g leaky_prog.c -o leaky_prog
```

- **Basic leak check:**

```
1 valgrind --leak-check=summary ./leaky_prog
```

- **Full leak diagnostics:**

```
1 valgrind --leak-check=full \  
2     --show-leak-kinds=all \  
3     ./leaky_prog
```

- **Additional helpful flags:**

- `--track-origins=yes` (find uninitialized-value sources)
- `--log-file=vg.log` (write report to file)



- Program executed under Valgrind; the following is a portion of the generated output:

```
1  ==3141801== HEAP SUMMARY:
2  ==3141801==      in use at exit: 37 bytes in 1 blocks
3  ==3141801==    total heap usage: 6 allocs, 5 frees, 1,088 bytes allocated
4  ==3141801==
5  ==3141801== 37 bytes in 1 blocks are definitely lost in loss record 1 of 1
6  ==3141801==    at 0x4848899: malloc (in /usr/libexec/valgrind/vgpreload_memcheck-amd64-linux.so)
7  ==3141801==    by 0x109238: duplicate_and_trim (leaky_prog.c:13)
8  ==3141801==    by 0x109356: main (leaky_prog.c:38)
9  ==3141801==
10 ==3141801== LEAK SUMMARY:
11 ==3141801==    definitely lost: 37 bytes in 1 blocks
12 ==3141801==    indirectly lost: 0 bytes in 0 blocks
13 ==3141801==    possibly lost: 0 bytes in 0 blocks
14 ==3141801==    still reachable: 0 bytes in 0 blocks
15 ==3141801==    suppressed: 0 bytes in 0 blocks
```



- Program executed under Valgrind; the following is a portion of the generated output:

```
1  ==3141801== HEAP SUMMARY:
2  ==3141801==    in use at exit: 37 bytes in 1 blocks
3  ==3141801==    total heap usage: 6 allocs, 5 frees,
   1,088
4  ==3141801==    bytes allocated
5
6  ==3141801==    37 bytes in 1 blocks are definitely lost
7  ==3141801==    at 0x4848899: malloc (in /usr/libexec/
8  ==3141801==    valgrind/vgpreload_memcheck-amd64-linux.so)
9  ==3141801==    by 0x109238: duplicate_and_trim
10 ==3141801==    (leaky_prog.c:13)
11 ==3141801==    by 0x109356: main (leaky_prog.c:38)
12
13 ==3141801== LEAK SUMMARY:
14 ==3141801==    definitely lost: 37 bytes in 1 blocks
15 ==3141801==    indirectly lost: 0 bytes in 0 blocks
16 ==3141801==    possibly lost: 0 bytes in 0 blocks
17 ==3141801==    still reachable: 0 bytes in 0 blocks
18 ==3141801==    suppressed: 0 bytes in 0 blocks
```

- "1088 bytes allocated" includes the five `malloc(orig_len+1)/malloc(len+1)` calls (≈ 64 B) and `glibc`'s own heap allocations (1024 buffer for `stdout`).
- 6 allocs vs. 5 frees. True leak
- The origin of the leak is:
`main` $\rightarrow$ `duplicate_and_trim` $\rightarrow$ `malloc(orig_len+1)` at line 13.
- Definitely lost: Allocated but never freed and to which the program has no pointer at exit.
- Indirectly lost: Blocks that weren't freed only because they were reachable solely from a definitely-lost block.

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- **Perf (statistical profiling)**
 - [Linux Perf Tutorial](#):
 - `man perf`
 - [Linux perf Examples: Brendan Greg](#). Another extensive tutorial on perf.
- **Valgrind (dynamic instrumentation)**
 - [Official Valgrind Manual](#).
 - [How to Use Valgrind to Check Memory in C/C++](#) Marcos Oliveira